Wheeled Mobile Robot Autonomy Under Degradation: A Survey of Methods and Evaluation

***Abstract*—Wheeled mobile robots operate under changing sensing, terrain, map, communication, and computational conditions that violate the assumptions of individual navigation algorithms. Reliable navigation requires estimation, planning, and control to account for these changes jointly, since errors and delays in one component affect decisions elsewhere in the system. This survey compares 229 publications from January 2021 to November 2026 on localization and mapping, traversability and motion control, semantic navigation, multi-robot coordination, and fault management. It organizes them by the navigation assumption that each degradation violates and by the information or action that each response changes. Selective sensing and fusion, adaptive motion models, map revision, and constrained action selection are complementary responses whose effectiveness depends on valid state estimates, fresh information, and feasible actions. Evaluation practice is compared by measurement level, degradation test conditions, and the events underlying risk or diagnostic claims. In this purposively selected sample, only 59 of the 228 technical publications (26%) report task outcomes under a named degradation condition, with localization and mapping evidence rarely extending beyond estimation error. The comparison identifies four interfaces that require joint evaluation: localization-triggered recovery, semantic reasoning with fallback under resource limits, terrain decisions conditioned on pose uncertainty, and shared-state acceptance after communication loss and reconnection. Evaluating them requires linking degradation onset, detection, and executed response to safety and task performance under matched conditions. Further challenges concern transfer across platforms, computational resources, sustained operation, and assurance under changing information quality.**

***Index Terms*—Wheeled mobile robots, robust navigation, localization, motion planning, multi-robot systems, fault tolerance, performance evaluation.**

I. Introduction

AUTONOMOUS wheeled robots transport goods, inspect facilities, explore unfamiliar sites, and assist people indoors and outdoors. To navigate, a robot must estimate its pose from imperfect measurements, represent obstacles and traversable space, plan a route that its chassis can execute, and track that route as new observations arrive, while a team member must also reconcile its own observations with information received from teammates. Reliable operation therefore depends both on the individual algorithms and on the information that passes between estimation, mapping, planning, and control.

Degradation occurs when operating conditions depart from the assumptions of these algorithms. Cameras encounter poor texture or illumination, laser scans lack geometric variation, wheels slip, and moved furniture invalidates a stored map, whereas semantic predictions and delayed messages introduce errors into task interpretation and coordination. Ground-robot datasets document combinations of darkness, lift transitions, abrupt braking, and uneven terrain [1], [2]. Beyond these sensing conditions, long-term deployments depend on charging, network availability, and operator assistance [3]. Addressing these conditions requires methods that relate the quality of the available information to the actions that a robot can still execute safely.

Geometric, learned, and language-based methods address these requirements in combination. A semantic navigator may still rely on geometric localization and a local collision controller, just as a learned planner may retain a model-based feasibility test. Representative simultaneous localization and mapping (SLAM) systems [4], [5] and the dynamic-window [6] and timed-elastic-band [7] planners that recur as comparators [8], [9] illustrate how these components assume different inputs and fail in different ways. Existing surveys examine individual aspects of the problem. They cover SLAM in extreme subterranean environments [10], global LiDAR localization [11], terrain traversability [12], learned navigation policies [13], social navigation [14], vision-and-language navigation [15], collaborative SLAM [16], and foundation models across embodiments [17]. Each is organized around one function, task setting, or method family. Table I lists their scopes alongside the cross-function connections developed here.

This survey organizes the literature around three questions: which navigation assumption a degradation affects, how a method changes the information or action available to the robot, and what evidence connects that change to navigation performance. Fig. 1 shows the resulting organization by navigation function, response family, and open interface. The main contributions of this survey are summarized as follows. First, this survey compares responses to degradation across five navigation functions together with their sensing, model, and action requirements, distinguishing component improvements from executed recovery. Second, it codes the evaluation evidence of the 228 technical publications by navigation function and finds that, in this purposive sample, only 26% report task outcomes under a named degradation condition. It also examines how platform, reference dependence, computation placement, and experimental design condition the interpretation of reported results. Third, it proposes four interfaces between existing methods that merit joint evaluation and outlines a matched comparison for each, namely localization-triggered recovery, semantic reasoning with fallback, pose uncertainty in terrain decisions, and shared-state acceptance after reconnection.

The remainder of this survey is organized as follows. Section II introduces wheeled motion constraints, the navigation stack, and the sources of degradation, after which Section III defines the scope and literature selection. Sections IV–VIII develop the technical synthesis, Section IX compares evaluation practice, Section X presents open challenges, and Section XI concludes this survey.

TABLE I
REPRESENTATIVE RELATED SURVEYS AND THE SYSTEM-LEVEL CONNECTIONS EXAMINED IN THIS REVIEW.

Review	Main organizing subject	Connection developed in this survey
Ebadi et al. (2024) [10]	SLAM systems and lessons from the DARPA Subterranean Challenge	Degradation responses connected to recovery actions and task outcomes beyond estimator design
Yin et al. (2024) [11]	Global LiDAR localization, place retrieval, and cross-robot localization	Relocalization as a recovery action whose candidate must be validated before navigation resumes
Sevastopoulos and Konstantopoulos (2022) [12]	Estimation of whether terrain can be traversed	Pose uncertainty, vehicle limits, route choice, and motion outcomes
Zhu and Zhang (2021) [13]	Deep reinforcement learning for navigation	Relations between learned decisions, constraints, and deployment evidence
Mavrogiannis et al. (2023) [14]	Planning, behavior design, and evaluation for social robot navigation	Social constraints kept separate from collision geometry and tested under degraded perception
Gu et al. (2022) [15]	Tasks, methods, and future directions in vision-and-language navigation	Semantic decisions coupled to geometric execution, response timing, and fallback
Lajoie et al. (2022) [16]	Collaborative localization and mapping	Shared-state validity during disconnection, local operation, and reconnection
Firoozi et al. (2025) [17]	Pretrained models across perception, decision-making, and control	Query timing, local constraints, and fallback in wheeled navigation

II. BACKGROUND

A. Wheeled Platforms and Motion Constraints

A wheeled mobile robot moves through driven or steered rolling contacts whose footprint, arrangement, and contact conditions constrain the paths it can execute. Differential-drive robots turn by varying the left and right wheel speeds, skid-steer robots use the same actuation with lateral slip at the contacts, Ackermann vehicles steer the front wheels with a finite minimum turning radius, and omnidirectional platforms generate lateral motion through their wheel arrangement [18]. For a planar reference point with position (x, y) and heading ψ, a common idealization is

$$\dot{x} = v\cos\psi, \qquad \dot{y} = v\sin\psi, \qquad \dot{\psi} = \omega, \tag{1}$$

where v is longitudinal speed and ω is angular speed. Under pure rolling, a differential-drive robot with wheel radius r, track width b, and right and left wheel angular speeds ω_R and ω_L satisfies

$$v = \frac{r}{2}(\omega_R + \omega_L), \qquad \omega = \frac{r}{b}(\omega_R - \omega_L). \tag{2}$$

An ideal bicycle approximation for Ackermann steering instead gives

$$\omega = \frac{v}{L}\tan\delta, \tag{3}$$

where L is the wheelbase and δ is the steering angle. Slip violates the pure-rolling assumption, wheel calibration affects odometry, and steering and acceleration limits constrain tracking. On uneven ground, suspension, pitch, roll, clearance, traction, and payload further affect feasibility. A planar collision-free path may therefore be physically unsuitable even when localization is accurate.

B. The Navigation Stack and Its Degradation

Fig. 2 shows the principal functions of a navigation system, the points at which degradation enters, and the interfaces examined in Section X. Cameras, color and depth (RGB-D) cameras, LiDAR, radar, inertial measurement units (IMUs), wheel encoders, global navigation satellite system (GNSS) receivers, and ultra-wideband (UWB) ranging supply measurements with calibration parameters and timestamps. The estimator infers robot state from these measurements and motion inputs, the mapping algorithm estimates spatial structure, the planner selects a route or trajectory, and the controller converts that reference into actuator commands. A supervisor can interrupt execution when measurements, models, or resources no longer support the current action. Deployed systems such as the Nav2 stack of the robot operating system (ROS) [19], [20] realize these functions through interacting maps, planners, controllers, and recovery behaviors, as in planner fallback [21] or behavior-tree supervision [22].

An estimator can be described through the posterior [23]

$$p(\mathbf{x}_t, \mathcal{M} \mid \mathbf{z}_{1:t}, \mathbf{u}_{1:t}), \tag{4}$$

where $\mathbf{x}_t$ is the robot state, $\mathcal{M}$ is the map, and $\mathbf{z}_{1:t}$ and $\mathbf{u}_{1:t}$ denote observation and motion-input sequences available through time t. Localization estimates state relative to a given reference, whereas SLAM estimates state and map jointly, commonly through visual–inertial odometry (VIO) or LiDAR–inertial odometry (LIO). ORB-SLAM3 [4] and FAST-LIO2 [5] are representative visual and LiDAR–inertial systems on which several reviewed methods build. Loop closures constrain revisited places, although an incorrect association can introduce correlated errors into many states. Downstream decisions may therefore require the covariance, association confidence, and age of an estimate as well as its mean. Since geometric, topological, and semantic representations retain different information, a representation sufficient for one decision can be insufficient for another. A place graph may support a long route while omitting a small obstacle. Similarly, a terrain label may describe appearance without establishing traction for a loaded vehicle.

In local planning, the dynamic window approach (DWA) searches admissible velocity commands [6], timed-elastic-band (TEB) optimization adjusts a sequence of poses and timing variables [7], and model predictive control (MPC) repeatedly solves a finite-horizon control problem. DWA and TEB

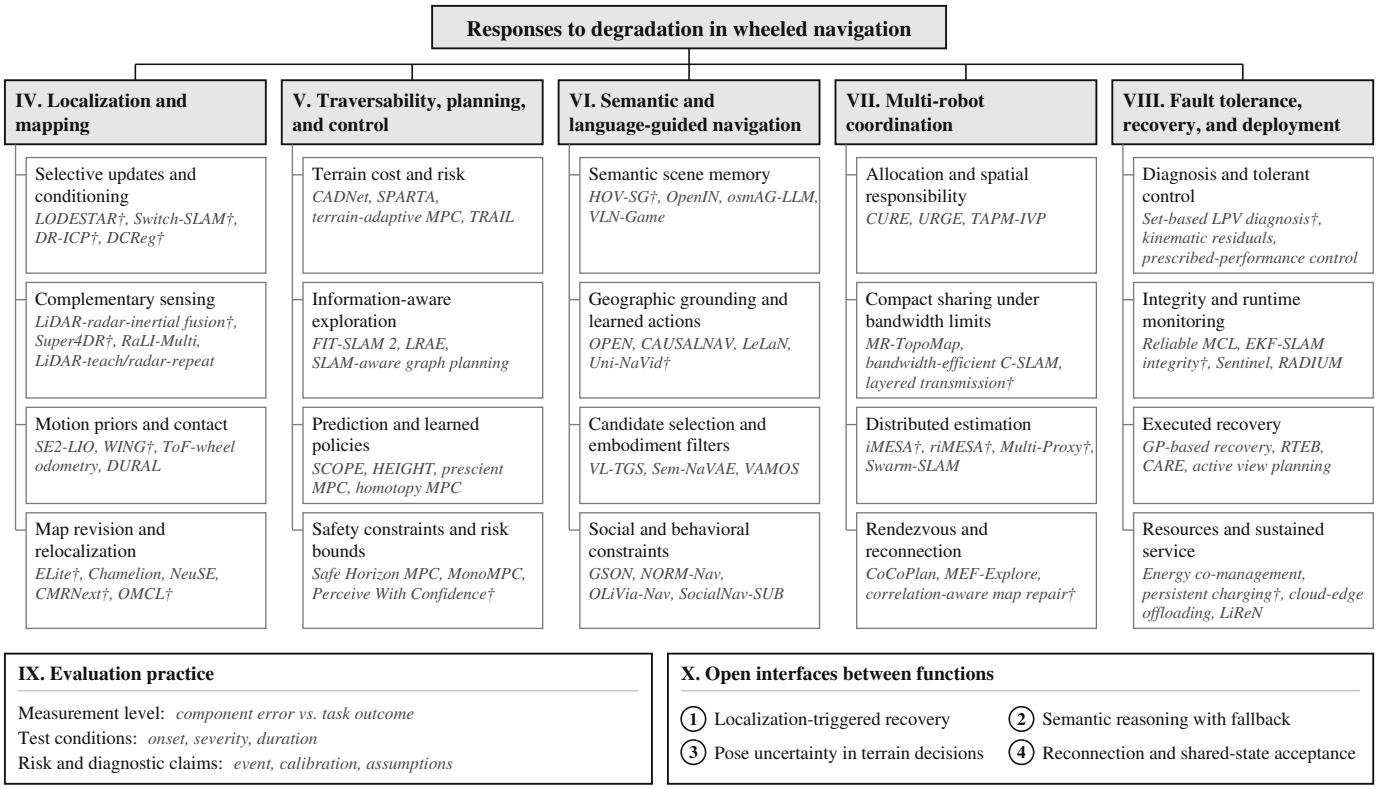


Fig. 1. Organization of the survey. Sections IV–VIII group responses to degradation by navigation function, with representative methods listed under each response family. The methods are examples rather than complete lists, and † marks examples not evaluated on a wheeled robot or its data. Section IX compares evaluation practice along three axes, and Section X examines four interfaces between functions whose behavior under degradation remains insufficiently characterized.

remain common comparators for the learned and predictive local planners evaluated in recent studies [8], [9]. A controller using a control barrier function (CBF) constrains inputs to keep the state within an admissible set under stated assumptions [24]–[26]. For a control-affine model $\dot{\mathbf{x}} = f(\mathbf{x}) + g(\mathbf{x})\mathbf{u}$, a common condition is

$$\nabla h(\mathbf{x})^{\mathsf{T}} \big[f(\mathbf{x}) + g(\mathbf{x})\mathbf{u} \big] + \alpha(h(\mathbf{x})) \geq 0, \tag{5}$$

where f denotes the drift dynamics, g maps the control input $\mathbf{u}$ to the state derivative, $h(\mathbf{x}) \geq 0$ defines the admissible set, and α is a suitable increasing function with $\alpha(0) = 0$. The resulting safety argument depends on the state information, dynamics, admissible inputs, and update implementation. Penalizing a barrier violation in an objective, by contrast, does not establish the condition during execution.

Here, *degradation* denotes an operating change that reduces the quality or validity of the information, models, resources, or physical capabilities required for navigation. Fig. 2 distinguishes four sources of degradation, which can occur together within one navigation episode. Sensing and estimation degradation includes weak texture, illumination change, poorly constrained scan geometry, GNSS denial, timing errors, and incorrect associations, as well as measurements that carry little information along one motion direction. Terrain and mobility degradation includes slopes, vegetation, soft ground, slip, and changed actuator behavior, where similar geometry can hide different friction or sinkage. Environment and map change includes moving people, altered layouts, and construction, all of which require the robot to separate transient obstacles from lasting map updates. Communication and computation degradation includes packet loss, partitions, stale shared states, delayed model responses, and missed deadlines. A restored link raises the further problem of reconciling states accumulated during the outage.

C. Accuracy, Task Performance, and Integrity

Absolute trajectory error (ATE) measures differences between estimated and reference poses after a declared alignment, whereas relative pose error (RPE) measures motion error over a declared interval. Both are commonly summarized by the root mean square error (RMSE), whose value depends on alignment freedoms, scale treatment, synchronization, aggregation, and the dependence of the reference on the evaluated sensors. Task measures include goal success, collisions, interventions, completion time, coverage, and energy, while success weighted by path length (SPL) combines goal success with path efficiency. Neither task success nor low ATE identifies the source of a failure or the ability to recover after an alarm.

Integrity concerns the risk of an unacceptable estimation error without an adequate warning [27]. A useful conceptual statement is

$$\Pr(E_t > A_t \ \wedge \ \text{no timely alert at } t), \tag{6}$$

where E_t is an error magnitude and A_t is an application-specific alert limit. A protection level is an error bound associated with a specified integrity model, whereas a covariance

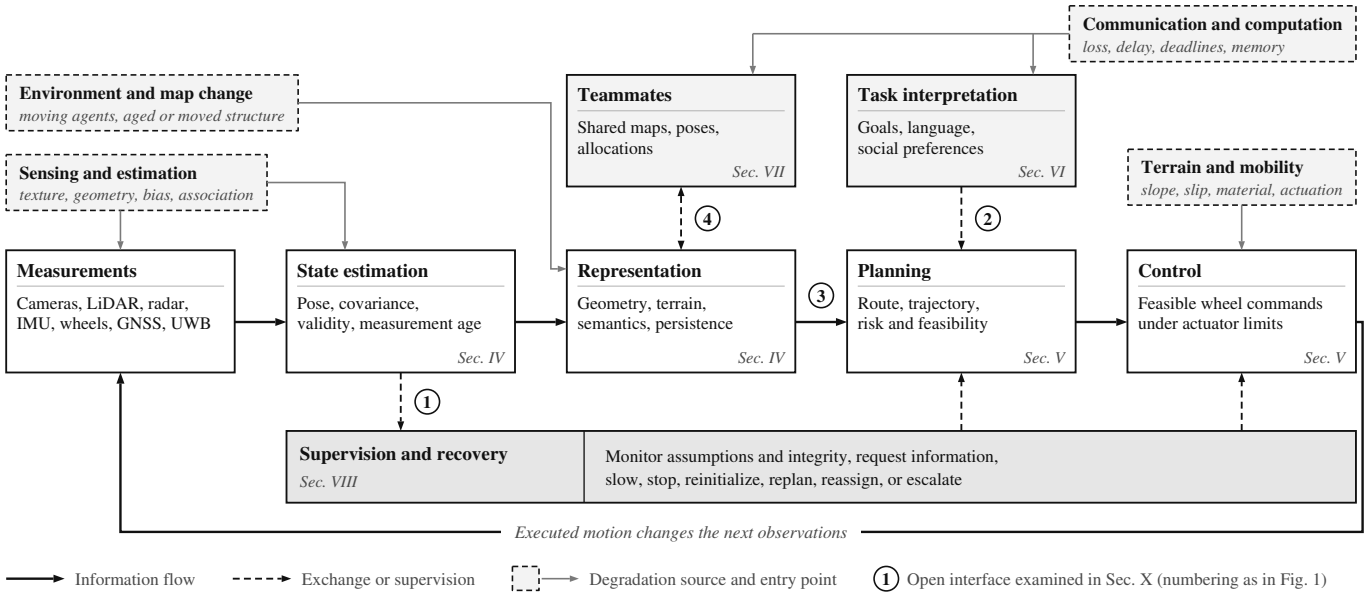


Fig. 2. Navigation functions, degradation entry points, and open interfaces. Each function box names the section that reviews it, and dashed boxes mark the four sources of degradation. Teammates and task interpretation supply information to the motion stack rather than bypassing vehicle constraints. The circled numerals locate the four interfaces of Section X.

alone is not a calibrated protection level. Particle-filter and SLAM integrity analyses account for fault hypotheses and association errors when relating alarm conditions to hazardous error [28], [29]. For navigation, the warning must also reach a response policy early enough for the motion and stopping constraints of the robot.

D. Datasets, Simulators, and Transfer

Table II relates representative datasets and simulators to the kinds of evidence they can support.

III. Scope and Literature Selection

This survey covers localization and mapping, traversability and motion control, semantic navigation, multi-robot coordination, and fault management for wheeled mobile robots operating under degraded sensing, terrain, maps, communication, or computation. It includes journal articles and main-conference papers published from 2021 to 2026 that propose, evaluate, or benchmark a mechanism relevant to these functions, counting a preprint and its published version once. Studies on legged, aerial, or road vehicles are included when their mechanism transfers to wheeled navigation and are marked in Fig. 1 and in the supplementary implementation tables.

Table III lists the selection stages. An initial search of 17 journals over 102 journal–year combinations yielded 58,583 merged records, of which 43,086 had complete metadata. Title and abstract screening assisted by a language model under preset topic allocations stopped after 45 acceptances and left 43,041 records unassessed. Its order and rejection history are unavailable. Six purposive stages then added works under theme quotas, for the four integration questions of Section X, and through IEEE-only and citation-based coverage that included RSS and CoRL proceedings. Every included work was read and coded, by full reading for 23 works and by targeted or extract-based reading for the others. Selection ended on November 3, 2026. The corpus is therefore a purposive sample whose stage quotas and publisher restrictions shape the counts of Section IX, and it supports technical comparisons rather than estimates of topic prevalence. Foundational methods and definitions from before 2021, such as dynamic-window planning, timed elastic bands, barrier-function control, and GNSS integrity, are cited as background references outside the coded corpus.

Each method is compared through the navigation assumption that a degradation violates, the information or action that the response changes, and the evidence that links the response to navigation outcomes. Reported metrics are interpreted within the platform and protocol of each study, without pooling effect sizes across heterogeneous datasets or trial units.

IV. Localization and Mapping

Localization and mapping methods respond to degradation through selective measurement updates, complementary sensing, motion priors, relocalization, and map revision. These responses differ in the information they retain and in their assumptions about geometry, contact, and correlations between estimates. Table S2 in the supplementary material lists representative implementations with their inputs, evaluation settings, and computation placement.

A. Localizability and Selective Measurement Updates

Geometric degeneracy occurs when measurements constrain some pose directions much less than others. One response keeps the information that remains in the weak directions, as LODESTAR does by selecting historical Schmidt–Kalman anchors from the condition of the LiDAR measurement Jacobian

TABLE II
REPRESENTATIVE EVALUATION RESOURCES, THEIR INTENDED USES, AND RELEVANT LIMITATIONS.

Resource	Evaluation use	Relevant limitation
M2DGR [1]	Ground-robot localization across everyday sensing and motion difficulties	Estimation errors must be connected separately to task outcomes
M2UD [2]	Uneven-terrain localization/mapping and runtime-aware comparison	References mix RTK and offline SLAM, external checks cover selected routes, and mapping includes handheld capture
GEODE [30]	Degeneracy comparisons across sensor conditions	Sensor-specific coverage and severity affect comparisons, and replay does not test action-dependent recovery
HK-MEMS [31]	Multi-sensor localization and reference comparisons	Missing reference intervals and failed trajectories require explicit coverage reporting
Robot/network simulation [32]	Designed reception and control conditions with repeated trials	A network-in-the-loop simulation is distinct from a distributed physical deployment

TABLE III
SELECTION STAGES OF THE 229 PUBLICATIONS. EACH ROW ADDS PUBLICATIONS TO THE EARLIER STAGES.

Selection	Basis	Works
Initial sample	Capped journal selection, 2021–2026	45
Complementary publications	Four technical studies and one context review	5
Thematic sample	Ten works under each of six themes	60
Integration questions	Four questions on combined navigation functions	15
Targeted IEEE coverage	Motion priors, recovery, shared-state diagnosis, and reproducibility	20
Further targeted coverage	Map validity, terrain risk, multimodal navigation, collaboration, and adaptation	48
Recent IEEE coverage	Six 2025–2026 IEEE journal or ICRA papers per theme	36
Total		**229**

and choosing points by their contribution along those directions [33]. With a common FAST-LIO2 backbone, absolute pose error (APE) on the SubT-MRS Long Corridor recording falls from 3.113 to 1.386 m, at the cost of an increase in average desktop computation from 21.04 to 28.69 ms. However, the improvement is not uniform, since the APE on the Short exp recording is 0.429 m against 0.412 m for the baseline. Other detectors characterize degeneracy before acting on it. A screw-theoretic analysis classifies translational, helical, and spherical degeneracy from point, line, range, and bearing constraints [34]. DR-ICP uses normal histograms to select and weight features along weak tunnel directions [35], whereas a DBSCAN-based detector adapts its decision to accumulated condition-number history and compensates with IMU motion after a startup phase [36]. DCReg decouples registration and preconditions the weak subspaces without changing the least-squares objective [37]. Such conditioning exploits weak but nonzero information, although it neither restores an absent constraint nor rescues an initialization outside the convergence basin. Comparisons of selection, compensation, and preconditioning therefore need controls matched to the information that each method exploits.

B. Complementary Sensing

Complementary sensors supply information that a degraded scan lacks, and they differ mainly in when the second modality enters the estimate. Switch-SLAM adds visual constraints only when normalized Hessian eigenvalues indicate LiDAR degeneracy and falls back to inertial propagation when both modalities fail [38]. Degradation-resilient LiDAR–radar–inertial odometry fuses continuously, keeping LiDAR constraints along observable directions and using radar velocity as independent motion information in obscurant tests on a flying robot [39]. An equivariant LiDAR–radar–inertial filter estimates inertial biases and rejects radar outliers, with observability resting on an exact map [40]. Radar-centric estimators must also cope with sparse, noisy returns. A continuous-trajectory radar–inertial estimator propagates pose uncertainty to the timestamp of each point and down-weights uninformative points during registration and mapping [41], whereas Super4DR learns radar odometry through self-supervision and completes the radar map with Gaussian primitives guided partly by image depth [42]. Teammates provide another source of information. RaLI-Multi corrects LiDAR–inertial drift along the detected degenerate direction with inter-vehicle UWB ranges, provided that at least one horizontal direction remains well constrained, and a stopped anchor vehicle optimizes and broadcasts the shared pose graph [43]. When no modality remains informative, MM-LINS hibernates the unreliable map, reinitializes, and registers the maps once they overlap again [44], trading continuous use of one map for recovery through later overlap. Selective updates need surviving geometry, fusion needs measurements that remain informative, and reinitialization needs later overlap, none of which a degeneracy alarm alone establishes.

C. Motion Priors, Contact, and Adaptation

Ground geometry can enter estimation as a reweighting, a motion prior, or an explicit factor. AESF-LIO reweights by fusing separate ground and non-ground corrections, which adds no independent observation [45]. SE2-LIO imposes a planar prior by parameterizing pose on $SE(2)$ and modeling out-of-plane perturbations as noise [46]. A sparse-channel LiDAR system adds an explicit ground-normal factor and intensity features to suppress vertical drift, although its ground detector misses gradual slope changes [47]. All three designs

rely on near-planar ground, which significant slope variation can invalidate.

Wheel and inertial measurements bridge failures of external sensing when contact and excitation remain adequate. Wheel-aided VIO propagates inertial–wheel motion during visual failure [48], while PL-VIWO adds motion-consistency rejection and point-assisted line triangulation to visual–inertial–wheel odometry, with its calibration held fixed [49]. Ground models extend this propagation beyond flat floors, as in a quadratic motion-manifold estimator that integrates wheel measurements on a local ground model, which extremely uneven farmland violates [50]. WING learns corrections for IMU bias and for wheel errors caused by skidding and vertical bouncing on a continuous B-spline ground manifold, yielding interoceptive-only odometry whose value as a fallback depends on how closely the ground follows the manifold [51].

Contact uncertainty can also be estimated explicitly, as when a tire-model observer fuses wheel-level velocity estimates by covariance intersection and excludes inconsistent wheels [52]. Time-of-flight (ToF)–wheel odometry inflates process covariance only along the remainder that differential-drive motion cannot explain [53]. DURAL switches between LiDAR–inertial–UWB estimation inside a surveyed anchor region and wheel-aided estimation outside it [54]. Learned kinematic factors [55] and the hierarchical modality reweighting of Super Odometry [56] train motion priors while perception is reliable and freeze them when supervision degrades, which limits the incorporation of unreliable measurements.

Wheel traces, deliberate contact, and calibration provide additional observations. Lug-generated wheel traces reveal slip on suitable soil [57], whereas commanded collisions with known-map geometry constrain pose in a filter, with hardware tests that rely on manually commanded contacts [58]. GNSS-aided IMU–odometer calibration estimates wheel scale and extrinsics but leaves vertical translation unobservable under planar motion [59]. Such calibration parameters should not absorb transient contact failure. IL-LIO learns point-to-voxel residuals and uncertainty for nonplanar geometry [60], although learned residual variance is not an independently calibrated integrity bound.

D. Dynamic Geometry and Persistent Maps

Dynamic-scene estimators choose between excluding moving observations and estimating them. Exclusion keeps the static map clean but can remove much of the geometry in crowds. Examples include semantic rejection of person features in hospital RGB-D SLAM [61] and GPU-free asynchronous mask propagation in NGD-SLAM, whose reported tracking time excludes concurrent detection [62]. DynoSAM instead estimates rigid-object motion in world-centric factor graphs through full-batch optimization without loop closure [63]. PG-SLAM and JPG-SLAM retain dynamic appearance through Gaussian representations, although neither runs in real time with loop closure [64], [65]. Improved rendering does not by itself establish a better obstacle map, since the appropriate representation depends on whether the downstream task needs static geometry or object motion.

Across sessions, map maintenance additionally requires an estimate of how long structure persists. Persistence enters as a survival prior on semantic clusters in ProbPer-LiLo [66] and as local and cross-session ephemerality weights for registration in ELite [67]. A lifelong LiDAR mapper instead stores positive and negative map differences, from which earlier versions can be reconstructed [68]. Chamelion learns change detection from synthesized structural changes and separates disappearance from occlusion before updating construction-site and office maps, performing best when registration error and voxel size resemble its training data [69]. For automotive radar, multi-session loop verification and a temporal occupancy grid retain persistent points for later localization under a planar-trajectory assumption [70]. NVMS-SLAM keeps normal-bearing surfaces apart to avoid merging opposite faces of thin walls and refines alignment offline [71], while NeuSE updates object maps after layout changes within the categories on which it was trained [72]. Most of these evaluations use recorded data, handheld acquisition, or injected changes, which leaves open how a moving robot responds to a revised map.

E. Prior-Map and Cross-Modal Localization

Localization against a compact or structural prior reduces the online representation but becomes sensitive to changes in the mapped environment. ERPoT matches sparse scans to polygon maps after ground removal [73], Area Graph localization matches filtered scans to walls and doors after WiFi and barometric initialization [74], and building information model (BIM) localization estimates as-designed discrepancies before weighting structural constraints [75]. Orchard trunk maps suppress seasonal foliage at the price of making global recovery depend on adequate trunk support [76]. An uncertainty-aware outdoor localizer weights normal distributions transform (NDT) matching by estimated covariance and gates GNSS, a rule that can reject accurate fixes after extended LiDAR loss [77].

Relocalization obtains new pose hypotheses from appearance or structure. Appearance cues include cross-attention image retrieval on pushed-robot recordings [78] and distilled LiDAR–camera place recognition [79]. Structural cues include object-level scene graphs that tolerate staged object moves [80], rendered point-cloud, mesh, or neural-radiance maps [81], and density maps for loop closure, which can inherit front-end degeneracy [82]. Retrieval provides a candidate rather than a verified pose, which the recovery procedure must then validate.

Cross-modal matching relaxes the requirement that map and query share a sensor. CMRNext casts camera-to-LiDAR matching as optical flow followed by perspective-n-point estimation and transfers across camera setups, although it is trained on driving data, does not yet run in real time, and receives an initial pose for every frame [83]. OMCL scores Monte Carlo hypotheses with open-vocabulary features ray-cast from a three-dimensional map and can initialize from a language description, provided that odometry is map-scaled and the map features still match the scene, since the map is not updated online [84]. LiDAR Teach, Radar Repeat applies such

cross-modal registration within a closed-loop route-repetition system [85]. Forward-looking 4D radar is localized against LiDAR keyframes from a teaching pass using a Doppler motion prior and an alignment of radar power with LiDAR intensity, with registration errors driving label-free fine-tuning. Route repetition on a four-wheel differential-drive platform covers smoke, moving traffic, and structural change over months, with obstacle avoidance left to other sensors.

F. Cooperative Estimates, Uncertain Maps, and Evaluation Resources

Cooperative estimators add constraints while introducing correlations. CoVOR-SLAM corrects monocular scale with inter-agent ranges in a similarity-pose graph [86], while a Lie-group estimator tracks the cross-covariances among wheel, inertial, and marker estimates over near-straight indoor motion [87]. A fault-tolerant prior-map estimator diagnoses observation, landmark, and odometry faults and lets a repaired landmark benefit a later collaborator [88]. Uncertainty in the map itself is represented in other ways. Semantic neural processes predict elevation with an uncertainty that still requires calibration [89], whereas E2-BKI propagates evidential semantic uncertainty through geometry-aligned kernels [90]. Pose uncertainty can also weight the mapped quantity, as in a multi-fidelity Gaussian process (GP) explorer that weights field samples on an aquatic robot by localization uncertainty [91]. How a calibrated pose distribution should change wheel-footprint clearance or speed remains open, as discussed in Section X.

Active sensing and new feature types qualify robustness claims further. Robot-mounted lighting in LUCID improves visual appearance without necessarily improving odometry [92]. AirSLAM combines learned point and line features with map reuse and reaches 40 Hz on an embedded GPU under illumination change, although it reduces to a point-feature system where structural lines are absent [93].

G. Synthesis

The main distinction among these methods is which information survives degradation and how the estimator uses it. When degradation leaves weak but nonzero constraints, selective updates and preconditioning change the estimator least, since they keep the sensor set and alter only how its information is weighted, provided that the weak directions are identified correctly. When a modality loses its information entirely, only an independent source such as radar velocity, ranging, or wheel and contact sensing restores the missing directions. Learned and geometric motion priors bridge such gaps only while their supervision remains credible and the ground follows their model. Relocalization and map revision address accumulated inconsistency rather than momentary weakness, with further requirements for overlap, persistence, cross-modal registration, and correlation handling. Their diagnostics also differ in meaning, since geometric conditioning, motion consistency, and place similarity cannot be treated as a common probability of localization failure. The evidence for these responses stops at the estimate, since only 2 of the 66 studies reviewed in this section report a task outcome (Table V). The consequences of each response for planning and control therefore remain unmeasured. Transfer to wheeled robots is a further qualification, since 36 of these studies evaluate on road vehicles, other embodiments, handheld or mixed rigs, or without a specified physical platform.

V. Traversability, Motion Planning, and Control

Motion planning and control connect the estimated environment to executable behavior. Under degradation, feasibility depends on terrain support, obstacle motion, state uncertainty, actuator limits, and the age of control information. The methods below address these dependencies through traversability costs, information-aware exploration, learned prediction and policies, safety constraints, and predictive control, with representative implementations listed in Table S3 of the supplementary material.

A. Terrain Support and Traversability Costs

Traversability is a relation between terrain and robot capability, which the reviewed methods express through quantities with different physical meanings. Learned costs describe where the robot can go. CADNet predicts heading-dependent accessible range from LiDAR history for a TEB planner on a SCOUT robot [94], whereas GA-Nav projects attention-based terrain segmentation into a cost map combined with elevation [95]. A risk-aware learner labels traversed footprints and adds weak obstacle labels before predicting unvisited cells, although its predictions are evaluated only on manually driven recordings [96]. Physical models describe whether the ground can carry the robot. PE-RRT* infers hidden support planes in vegetation with multivariate Gaussian processes and tracks the route with nonlinear MPC [97], while a multilevel planner checks settling, support polygon, and body collision for a tracked robot, with its wheeled variant tested only in simulation [98]. An anisotropic explorer penalizes motion by slope and travel direction with a quasi-static Euler Cost that omits slip and suspension transients [99]. A footprint label, a support plane, a stability margin, and a cross-slope penalty are not interchangeable estimates of traversal risk.

Recent planners condition terrain risk on approach direction and uncertainty and embed it in optimization. SPARTA predicts angle-conditioned risk distributions as reusable Fourier functions from a fully observed prior point cloud and evaluates their tire-deformation consequences in simulation, with a physical demonstration that routes around a virtual risky branch [100]. A visual-foundation-model approach learns cost, speed, and novelty maps from expert driving for model predictive path integral (MPPI) control, with field trials in which operator corrections expose residual failures that offline trajectory agreement conceals [101]. A terrain-adaptive ϵ-constraint MPC minimizes path length while bounding a pose-stability cost adjusted online from terrain descriptors, with a sparse GP correcting its car-like dynamics [102]. Its success falls from 94% in simulation to 80% outdoors on a Scout Mini, which the authors attribute to wheel slip and sensor noise, although it still exceeds the 67% of MPPI and 73% of GAKD in the same

outdoor comparison. TRAIL learns an implicit field of terrain attributes from RGB and LiDAR and optimizes path geometry and speed along its gradients, with field interventions caused by wet-ground traction loss and failures attributed to occlusion and limited field of view [103]. These systems already make risk-sensitive terrain decisions, whereas map completeness, uncertainty calibration, traction, and physical consequences remain separate evaluation questions.

B. Exploration with Information and Geometry

Exploration chooses where to improve the map while preserving the ability to localize, as FIT-SLAM 2 does by attaching frontiers to SLAM keyframes, adapting a traversability roadmap after pose changes, and rejecting edges with low expected landmark information [104]. With a common controller and simulator pose, completion takes 880 s versus 1118 s for FAEL in Cave but 1809 s versus 1706 s in Corridor. Fisher-information evaluation also raises mean planning time from 20.8 to 63.0 ms. Other planners score uncertainty directly. Confidence-rich exploration combines particle-trajectory entropy with occupancy confidence and executes the loop on hardware [105], whereas an uncertainty-frontier planner scores coverage with signed relative entropy under known orientation [106]. A further group changes the representation of unexplored space, including safety levels for unknown regions in LRAE [107], octree category distributions for semantic exploration [108], and overlapping free polytopes in FRTree, which checks that each region can contain the robot geometry and was tested on a quadruped rather than under wheeled curvature limits [109]. A SLAM-aware planner inserts informative loop closures over a supplied topo-metric graph [110]. Potential-field MPC integrates frontier and unknown-space costs on a six-wheel skid-steer robot, although without systematic baselines [111]. As the FIT-SLAM 2 results show, more observable routes can cost travel and computation, with a benefit that depends further on the availability of priors and on useful loop opportunities.

C. Learning, Prediction, and Interaction

Learning enters planning at different points. NAMR-RRT learns where a risk-aware tree samples [112], whereas prescient navigation passes multimodal pedestrian hypotheses to nonlinear MPC, which may exhaust its time budget [9]. A learned relaxation of optimal reciprocal collision avoidance (ORCA) predicts escape direction and avoidance responsibility [113]. SCOPE predicts distributions of future occupancy grids from robot motion, tracked objects, and a local static map and inserts their mean and uncertainty into the costmaps of existing planners, with distillation enabling embedded inference [114]. However, its navigation comparisons are mainly simulated, while its constant-velocity robot model fails during abrupt rotation. Homotopy-driven MPC optimizes distinct trajectory classes in parallel from externally tracked poses [115], a form of candidate diversity that reduces local inconsistency without compensating for a missed pedestrian or an incorrect interaction model.

Learned local policies encode observation history implicitly. Visual proximal policy optimization (PPO) adds a motion-perceptibility auxiliary task [116], depth-based recurrent PPO is compared with DWA and TEB in simulation [8], and a LiDAR actor–critic controller uses spatiotemporal attention under adaptive Monte Carlo localization (AMCL) on a prebuilt map [117]. HEIGHT separates pedestrians from static obstacles in a heterogeneous spatio-temporal graph and transfers from a low-fidelity simulator to four everyday environments, although its deployed obstacle input assumes a map and reliable localization [118]. A rough-terrain sim-to-real policy trained with terrain scaling and pose noise still fails under vibration and inaccurate reconstructed geometry [119]. Lifelong navigation, in turn, learns only where an initial DWA policy supplies useful experience [120]. As the learned-navigation review notes [13], the training data and observation representation determine which disturbances such controllers can accommodate. Recurrence alone therefore does not establish robustness to localization failure.

D. Safety Filters and Explicit Risk Conditions

A safety filter modifies a nominal command when a constraint would otherwise be violated. A LiDAR-based CBF controller fits a GP to current obstacle edges and uses its mean and gradient in a quadratic program, with an invariance argument that requires known state, unconstrained inputs, and suitable updates while excluding the GP variance [26]. Other barrier designs differ in what they add to the nominal behavior. Some add structure to the motion, as in a circulation-embedded CBF with a tangential constraint and hold logic [121] and in dynamic movement primitives whose forcing term receives a CBF correction [122]. Others address the conditions under which the barrier must hold. An adaptive high-order CBF filters iterative linear quadratic regulator (LQR) commands under input bounds [25], a disturbance-estimation CBF compensates matched uncertainty on a tracked robot [123], and safe reinforcement learning learns state-dependent high-order barrier penalties alongside soft actor–critic [124]. Their evidence ranges from external pose and offboard computation to numerical studies.

Other controllers constrain an explicit risk event. A distributionally robust CBF uses noisy barrier samples [125], while a conditional value at risk (CVaR) controller selects among feasible risk levels in crowds [126]. A risk-aware-zone barrier expands an avoidance region under input saturation, with a score that is not a calibrated probability [127]. Safe Horizon MPC samples obstacle trajectories, applies a plan only after slack and support checks, and otherwise decelerates [128]. In 100 Gaussian eight-pedestrian simulations with a joint-risk specification of 0.05, its mean traversal takes 16.0 s (standard deviation 1.9 s) versus 18.4 s (2.4 s) for chance-constrained MPC, with maximum estimated plan collision probabilities of 0.0092 and 0.0019. Faster traversal thus accompanies a less conservative plan under the assumed distribution, although the reported probabilities are not empirical collision rates. Calibration offers a third route. Perceive With Confidence calibrates obstacle inflation over sampled environments for

a planner with an inevitable-collision-set constraint on a legged robot [129], whereas conformal crowd navigation limits cumulative intrusion into calibrated pedestrian regions on a Mecanum robot [130]. MonoMPC learns the distribution of minimum clearance for candidate controls from monocular depth and minimizes a distribution-based risk [131]. In Jackal trials on the same estimated depth, its collision rate is 6.6% against 25% for a navigation stack at a similar mean speed and 48.3% for a faster setting, with planning on a networked laptop and no temporal memory. Chance constraints, CVaR, conformal coverage, and calibrated clearance concern different events. Comparisons should preserve these distinctions rather than read every confidence value as a collision probability.

E. Tracking, Mission Costs, and Network Support

Tracking control shows how model error, command age, and mission utility enter execution. A GP-MPC controller learns residual dynamics offline from field data and uses only the GP mean [132], while predictive learning refines repetitive Mecanum trajectories under external UWB pose [133]. Communication loss calls for a different response. Delay-aware MPC predicts current states from delayed packets and buffers future controls [134], whereas vehicle–cloud MPC runs onboard and remote optimizers in parallel and stops on timeout [135]. Mission-dependent costs add another reason to change a route, as in infrastructure-based hazard inference added to a cost map [136] and in payload- or sensing-aware MPPI on a compressed scouting map [137].

Several controllers offer guarantees or savings under restricted models. Prescribed-time spatiotemporal tubes assume bounded disturbances and terminal separation without explicit input constraints [138]. Memory-event-triggered MPC reduces repeated solves for a no-slip Ackermann model in hardware-in-the-loop tests [139]. Curvature-constrained vector fields co-design motion and saturation on an Ackermann vehicle with motion capture [140], while universal constrained tracking filters references that exceed prescribed state bounds [141]. Neither a reach-avoid proof without input limits nor fewer solves establishes timely, feasible control on a saturated onboard system.

F. Synthesis

Motion methods differ in what they change, namely the terrain cost, the sampled route, the predicted occupancy or obstacle motion, or the final command. Where the failure mode is physical, such as sinkage, tipping, or slip, support and stability models describe the relevant consequence, whereas learned terrain costs encode appearance and traversal experience without modeling that consequence. Where obstacles move, predictive constraints with a stated risk event make admissibility testable under their state, dynamics, and update assumptions, whereas learned policies remain bounded by the interactions in their training data. Since the resulting trade-offs concern progress as well as conservatism, comparisons should establish which of these changes produces the reported task benefit. Unlike the estimation studies of Section IV, nearly all of these studies report task outcomes. Fewer than half, however, report results under a named degradation condition (Table V), with the result that most task results are not tied to a specified degraded condition.

VI. Semantic and Language-Guided Navigation

A semantic navigation system that combines task interpretation, scene memory, and motion generation may output a room, an object instance, frontier scores, a path, a cost layer, or an action sequence. The type of output determines how a reasoning error propagates into planning and control. Table S4 in the supplementary material lists representative implementations with their sensing and evaluation settings.

A. Semantic Memory and Scene Structure

Persistent semantic maps support relational queries but must be updated when objects move. HOV-SG organizes a mapped building into floors, rooms, and objects for hierarchical retrieval [142], while DualMap searches stable anchors globally before checking objects locally [143]. OpenIN updates the existence confidence of a carrier–object pair when an expected object is not observed [144]. Such updates must distinguish removal from occlusion or poor depth. osmAG-LLM instead assumes from the outset that objects move, keeping a lightweight text-based area graph for context, asking a language model for likely locations, and confirming targets by online detection [145]. In 30 building trials it succeeds end to end in 21 and reaches a correct position in 27, with detection errors causing most failures.

Goal-conditioned maps store less reusable structure, as VLFM projects image–language similarity into a frontier value map until a detector supplies the goal [146]. VLN-Game builds an object-centric three-dimensional map and uses a game-theoretic vision-language model (VLM) to disambiguate attribute-rich descriptions in Habitat-Matterport scenes [147]. SysNav reserves VLM calls for room-level decisions and leaves viewpoint selection and waypoint execution to geometric modules [148]. Multimodal spatial language maps add image and audio features to an offline map, although a remembered sound marks where it was heard rather than its source [149]. Temporal scene-object graphs report corner trapping from missing depth and episodes that end with the target out of view among their physical failures [150]. Co-NavGPT extends semantic reasoning to team frontier assignment, which a geometric policy then executes [151].

B. Geographic Grounding, Priors, and Learned Actions

Outdoor instructions often refer to places beyond the sensor horizon. OPEN associates visual semantics with OpenStreetMap and replans locally when road geometry differs from the map [152]. G-DRAGON constrains generated identifiers to existing map entities before composing a behavior tree [153], whereas CAUSALNAV retrieves destinations from an object–building–cluster graph and combines global routing with constrained local control [154]. Their requirements differ in prior exploration, map coverage, heading initialization, and remote computation. Hand-drawn maps and recorded demonstration tours raise similar questions about prior coverage.

HAM-Nav associates live landmarks with an imperfect hand-drawn map and predicts omitted ones before A*/TEB execution [155], whereas Mobility VLA retrieves a goal frame from a demonstration tour and routes over an offline graph without exploring [156].

Learned policies map language and images directly to motion, as in LeLaN, which trains a last-mile policy from labeled robot and action-free video [157]. In 150 trials with 28 initially visible objects, its success within 0.2 m is 0.89 versus 0.67 for OWL-v2 with ZoeDepth, while in a separate ablation collision training raises arrival with obstacles from 0.13 to 0.60 in 15 trials but lowers success without obstacles from 0.89 to 0.77. These results separate target grounding from obstacle handling without establishing open-world search or a collision-risk bound. Uni-NaVid compresses multiscale video history before predicting discrete primitives whose vocabulary bounds the available actions [158], whereas LGX prompts a language model for exploration directions and falls back to random exploration after an invalid response [159].

C. Candidate Selection and Behavioral Constraints

Selecting among explicit candidates confines semantic errors to a choice among feasible alternatives. VL-TGS generates LiDAR-based trajectories, projects them into an image for GPT-4V ranking, and follows the choice with DWA while later decisions are pending [160]. However, its ranking cannot recover a route that the generator never proposes. Sem-NaVAE applies the same generate-and-select structure without a map, scoring conditional variational autoencoder (VAE) proposals with lightweight open-vocabulary segmentation and reporting 90% success on 120–240 m campus and park routes with few repetitions per route [161]. VAMOS adds an embodiment filter, in which a per-robot affordance model trained in simulation re-ranks the image-space paths proposed by a VLM planner [162]. With the planner unchanged, the affordance model of a wheeled robot raises its success on a ramp-or-stairs task from 6 to 9 of 10 runs, a gain indicating that semantic proposals need filtering by the capabilities of the executing chassis.

Social and behavioral constraints, which separate preference from collision geometry, enter the navigation stack at different levels. VLM-Social-Nav converts cue-triggered judgments into social costs for DWA [163], while NORM-Nav writes semantic, directional, and speed layers parsed from free-form instructions into the costmaps of standard grid planners [164]. VLM-informed path selection ranks clustered detours before an ORCA controller computes velocities [165], whereas GSON supplies group labels to a mid-level planner above a barrier-constrained predictive controller [166]. OLiVia-Nav distills large-model social reasoning into lightweight encoders that are updated online, with evaluation against expert trajectories and personal-space violation rather than collision rates [167]. Safe-VLN masks predicted waypoints with simulated occupancy and selects a new waypoint after a collision occurs [168]. SocialNav-SUB tests the reasoning premise directly, showing that strong VLMs still trail human consensus and position-based rules on social scene questions [169]. Physical feedback can ground semantic terrain estimates, as VLM-GroNav revises terrain costs and waypoints from visual and proprioceptive exemplars [170]. A grouping or grounding error can thus alter the route even when the local controller avoids detected people, whereas an occluded pedestrian can invalidate the controller itself.

D. Memory, Timing, and Embodied Execution

Semantic decisions remain valid for different durations. TARIC triangulates intermittent goal cues into a particle memory that keeps an executable goal direction during cue-free travel, although the memory drifts over long cue-free stretches [171]. Other systems align the timing of reasoning with the scene, as SysNav queries at room transitions, GSON uses updated keyframes, and the social path selector associates asynchronous responses with current candidates [148], [165], [166]. VAMOS plans at 1 Hz on a laptop GPU [162], while OLiVia-Nav moves reasoning into compact encoders [167]. Response age must therefore be judged against the referenced scene, since a room decision can outlive a pedestrian detour. A fast local controller, in turn, can absorb a slow query only while it retains a valid action. Embodiment then determines how a semantic choice becomes motion. VLFM uses different low-level controllers in simulation and on Spot [146], Uni-NaVid runs remote inference on a quadruped [158], and LeLaN executes on a wheeled base [157]. For wheels, turning in place, lateral motion, and reversing are available only if the chassis supports them. Map or tour preparation, workstation or cloud computation, and the actions available during pending inference also belong in the comparison [149], [151], [155], [156], [170].

E. Synthesis

The reviewed systems connect semantic reasoning to motion through scene memory, geographic grounding, learned actions, cost layers, or candidate selection. Candidate selection confines semantic errors most directly, since an error then selects a different feasible route instead of producing an infeasible command, provided that the generator, the feasibility checks, and the local controller remain valid. Its reach is limited by the candidates that the generator proposes. Cost layers keep geometry in charge of the final motion but can still misdirect the route, whereas direct policies depend on their history and action vocabulary. Persistent maps support reuse but require validity updates. Semantic correctness and collision avoidance therefore require separate evaluation. As in Section V, nearly every study reports task outcomes, while fewer than a third report results under a named degradation condition (Table V).

VII. Multi-Robot Coordination

Multi-robot coordination involves task allocation, information exchange, state fusion, and motion interaction. Since teams exchange frontiers, maps, observations, poses, or position histories, communication degradation turns local operation and shared-state consistency into separate objectives. Table S5 in the supplementary material lists representative mechanisms with their evaluation settings.

A. Task Allocation and Spatial Responsibility

Allocation reduces redundant work through a common state. Centralized planners partition merged maps into dynamic Voronoi cells in CURE [172], assign known targets over a sparse Delaunay graph with priority yielding in DMT-CPP [173], or fix a robust task schedule before the mission under uncertain agent capabilities [174]. Distributed methods reduce negotiation without removing shared state. CQLite exchanges selected Q-values and frontiers [175], whereas LPFE predicts the frontier choices of teammates from a common map and their last known positions [176]. 4CNet predicts map structure from shared trajectories with an estimated confidence [177]. Such inference avoids messages only while robots hold compatible inputs.

Region-level allocation makes the shared state coarser, as URGE abstracts the map into subregions with exploration states and allocates them by jointly minimizing path cost and balancing load [178]. Its full-set exchange with an explored-overrides-unexplored rule lets regional maps converge after a link returns. Its field runs with three robots use an ad hoc mesh network in a forest, a parking lot, and a tunnel. Terrain-aware partitioning (TAPM-IVP) extends spatial responsibility to uneven ground with communication-radius-constrained regions and traversability-aware subgoals [179]. In ten simulated trials of Scene 1, each robot succeeds in 90% of trials, compared with 40% and 30% for an ablation that removes both partitioning and greedy subgoal selection. These per-robot rates do not give the probability that the whole team completes the mission.

B. Compact Sharing and Distributed Estimation

Compact representations trade bandwidth against what teammates can infer. MR-TopoMap shares topological vertices with place descriptors and keeps occupancy local for avoidance [180]. Cross-rank exchanges position histories and assigns directions at intersections [181], while WiSER-X infers relative positions from radio pings, which require an interpretation when they are missing [182]. Map-sharing systems decide what to transmit and when to fuse it. SlideSLAM buffers exchanged object observations until a loop closure fixes the frame transform [183], whereas Commerge minimizes the scans transmitted for central submap registration without adapting to radio capacity [184]. Bandwidth-efficient collaborative SLAM separates lossy mutual-information keyframe selection from lossless entropy coding under a central back end [185]. Feedback-guided hierarchical transmission sends a pose-and-factor skeleton, prioritized geometry, and semantic labels in layers and reallocates bandwidth each round from back-end loop-closure and risk signals [186]. However, its authors note that round-wise guidance can become stale under asynchronous links. PROMO-Orchard gates submap merging with orchard priors and with posterior checks against a reference built by the same backbone [187].

Distributed estimators must also handle delayed and repeated information. iMESA keeps local incremental factor graphs and updates consensus variables through a two-stage exchange that must complete once started [188]. riMESA, a direct extension by the same authors, removes this blocking requirement by formulating collaborative SLAM as edge-based consensus with the alternating direction method of multipliers (ADMM), rejecting outliers with a robust local solver, and discarding failed exchanges [189]. Multi-Proxy combines lightweight descriptors for progressive loop detection with asynchronous ADMM pose-graph optimization and continues under simulated packet loss and latency, where a two-stage Gauss–Seidel baseline fails to converge, provided that front-end odometry stays stable [190]. Parallel graph inference separates current-state from historical-message inference [191], whereas CoVOR-SLAM changes what is shared, exchanging poses, covariances, and ranges instead of features [86]. Swarm-SLAM runs decentralized inference with sparse loop prioritization online on a heterogeneous physical team [192], whereas foundation-model loop closing anchors monocular scale with metric odometry, evaluated by replay on a Jetson [193]. Radio geometry adds constraints with their own assumptions, as in cooperative range-only SLAM analyzed offline with all landmarks visible [194] and in formation-controlled UWB anchors whose geometry competes with obstacle clearance [195]. A prior-graph extension of single-robot SLAM-aware planning [110] adds informative loop edges to multi-robot coverage paths, although its approximation bound concerns the graph objective rather than physical loop correspondences [196].

C. Rendezvous, Disconnection, and Conditional Repair

Communication can become part of the motion objective. A rendezvous-aware explorer creates backtracking frontiers from decaying trajectory records [197], whereas a communication-constrained controller schedules sub-team meetings that require full-team agreement to update [198]. CoCoPlan treats team-wise communication events as decision variables and co-optimizes them with task assignment through branch-and-bound search [199]. In simulations with up to 100 robots, it reports a 22.4% higher task-completion rate and 58.6% lower communication overhead than the compared protocols. MEF-Explore derives rendezvous from entropy fields and assumes that low-rate position exchange is always available, exploring 21.32% faster with a 16.67% higher success rate than the baseline on three TurtleBot2 robots [200]. All of these methods depend on reaching an encounter, exchanging the required state, and executing the subsequent plan.

During disconnection, robots can continue locally and reconcile later. ROAM continues planning from local maps during observed Wi-Fi cutoffs at the cost of revisits [201]. Correlation-aware collaboration exchanges states, covariances, and cross-covariances of common landmarks before Kullback–Leibler averaging and Schmidt–Kalman updates, a procedure that excludes faulty observations and corrects uncertain landmarks [88]. It is evaluated on recorded road-vehicle data and repairs the estimate rather than executing a navigation recovery. Failure-aware target tracking fuses target estimates by covariance intersection after reconnection and lets a permanently isolated aerial tracker signal a hazard [202]. The communication-aware CBF controller relaxes conflicting

constraints and drops unreliable links, with recovery evaluated under partial connectivity [32]. Planned synchronization makes observation an action, scheduling check-ins in which a TurtleBot pair stops and pans to observe each other [203]. A range-based integrity monitor reconstructs shared localization errors with distributed ADMM, although its demonstration runs centrally on emulated ranges [204]. These mechanisms address target estimates, landmarks, links, or observations, although none of them supplies a complete protocol for accepting stale or biased map content after an uncontrolled partition.

D. Motion Interaction and Persistent Service

Coordination also occurs below the allocation layer. RL-RVO learns a distributed velocity policy from reciprocal velocity-obstacle features with external localization [205], while predefined-time formation control compensates modeled actuator faults over a fixed graph [206]. Compensation-based MPC estimates model discrepancy online for four motion-captured nonholonomic robots and leaves deadlock to future work [207]. Reachability-based platoon control preserves separation under bounded inputs and assumes reliable communication [208], whereas distributed barrier control adds a coordinated deadlock response on physical vehicles [209]. In mEclares, evaluated with quadrotor agents and a ground charging rover, a scheduler reserves return and landing opportunities from energy and timing conditions, with agents falling back to committed paths after disconnection [210]. These results establish implemented coordination responses, whereas validity under a degraded network requires its own fault model and trials.

E. Synthesis

Coordination methods reduce redundant work through allocation, compact representations, or distributed inference, although lower message volume changes which information is available without resolving inconsistencies between local estimates. When links fail unpredictably, asynchronous optimization and local planning sustain activity without a meeting schedule. When connectivity can be planned, rendezvous and communication-aware allocation trade travel for timely exchange. In both cases, reconnection additionally requires validating correspondences, accounting for correlations, and deciding which updates to accept. About a third of the studies reviewed here report task outcomes under a named degradation condition (Table V), many of them with simulated, replayed, or modeled communication. Evaluations with moving wheeled teams should therefore relate physical communication loss and reconnection to estimate divergence, coverage, interventions, and recovery time.

VIII. Fault Tolerance, Recovery, and Long-Term Deployment

Fault management includes detecting anomalies, isolating causes, accommodating degraded inputs or actuators, and restoring operation. These functions need not occur together, since a controller may tolerate bias without identifying its source and an estimator may correct a landmark without changing the motion of the robot. Table S6 in the supplementary material lists the monitored quantities, response mechanisms, and evaluation settings of representative implementations.

A. Fault Estimation and Tolerant Control

Analytic redundancy provides diagnosis without duplicating every sensor. Kinematics-based detection compares position, angular velocity, and acceleration through transport relations, although its rover evaluation injects faults into recorded data whose substitute position source already contains inertial measurements [211]. A linear parameter-varying (LPV) vehicle diagnoser combines zonotopic set-membership estimation with invariant-set bounds, in which separation from the healthy set establishes detectability and overlap between fault classes prevents unique isolation [212]. Tolerant controllers instead accommodate faults in specified channels, each relying on a different remaining capability. Mixed-gain prescribed-performance control tolerates partial wheel-effectiveness loss [213], whereas virtual-error control tolerates heading and wheel-speed faults but assumes exact position [214]. Adaptive sliding-mode control handles injected actuator faults and saturation on industrial hardware as long as some actuation remains [215]. Fixed-time adaptive tracking accommodates dead zones and modeled actuator faults in MATLAB studies [216]. An observer-based event-triggered controller reconstructs modeled faults before issuing updates in hardware-in-the-loop tests of a low-speed, no-slip vehicle [217].

B. Integrity and Failure Monitoring

Monitors differ in the failure event they characterize. Reliable Monte Carlo localization (MCL) estimates a latent localization-success state alongside pose and triggers free-space global relocalization [218], whereas particle-filter integrity bounds undetected lateral error under association-fault hypotheses [28]. Integrity analysis for extended Kalman filter (EKF) SLAM also accumulates landmark fault risk, although its recorded example crosses the threshold only after localization fails [29]. A prior-line-map protection level predicts estimation error, with operational alerting left for future work [219]. Monitors of learned policies use statistical alarm definitions. Conformal anomaly detection controls the nominal false-alarm rate under exchangeability [220], while Sentinel pairs fast action-consistency monitoring with slower vision-language progress assessment [221]. PAAD predicts anomalies along a planned path on field recordings in which people reposition the robot after failures [222]. RADIUM moves failure prediction before deployment by sampling environment parameters from a distribution conditioned on failure [223]. It repairs the policy on the discovered cases and reports up to five times higher robustness for a repaired vision-in-the-loop policy on a 1/10-scale car, although failures absent from the simulator remain unpredictable. A latent reliability score, a bound on hazardous error, nominal false-alarm control, and simulation-based falsification answer different questions.

C. From Diagnosis to an Executed Response

The response must match the location of the fault in the stack. In the estimator, Switch-SLAM changes constraints when one modality fails [38], whereas fault-tolerant prior-map collaboration excludes faulty observations, inflates faulty-landmark covariance, and specifies reinitialization for odometry faults without evaluating an executed reset [88]. At the planning level, a GP predictor of safe-corridor optimizer failure triggers a stop–reposition–resume sequence [224]. With the same planner in simulation, recovery yields eight successes in ten runs against three in ten in a dense world with 1 m doorways. Both variants succeed in all ten runs in a sparse world with 2 m doorways. However, the predictor posterior concerns planner failure rather than collision. At the level of the controller and supervisor, a fault-aware CBF controller optimizes over candidate sensor or actuator fault sets in numerical examples [225], whereas FORTRESS caches slow semantic reasoning for runtime reach-avoid fallback on a quadrotor [226].

Implemented recovery policies differ in what they restore, from localization to task feasibility. A nonlinear MPC (NMPC) visual navigation system stops after tracking loss and attempts relocalization, restarting the trial if it fails [227], whereas behavior-tree supervision on CENTAURO chooses among contact repositioning, reversing, replanning, and human assistance [22]. Task-level policies change the mission instead, as resilient temporal-logic planning relaxes task windows or removes tasks when local correction fails [228] and predictive swarm fault tolerance withdraws an affected robot to maintenance before complete failure [229]. Local recovery acts on the trajectory or the observations, as when RTEB reinitializes an infeasible local trajectory with hybrid A* in a ROS 2 stack [21]. SCALE favors trajectories that return toward familiar visual states [230], whereas CARE applies repulsive corrections from estimated depth to a visual policy [231]. However, neither familiarity nor estimated depth supplies a clearance certificate. Help Me Through learns viewpoint actions from about 50 h of human demonstrations, or 20 h followed by online fine-tuning, to keep monocular SLAM tracking through texture-poor transitions, with a physical test that runs the policy on live images while a person teleoperates path planning [232]. When a robot cannot restore a capability, the team can reassign its task. Examples are energy-aware allocation under staged capability loss on Robotarium [233] and R-FAC, whose log-sum-exp value factorization keeps search policies effective when members fail without notification, assuming perfect target detection [234].

D. Resources and Sustained Operation

Resource choices determine whether a response remains available. CODEI selects bodies, sensors, algorithms, and computing units from catalogs by coupling simulated planner queries to characterized perception errors [235]. Joint runtime control of motor speed and processor voltage and frequency on a wheeled rover reduces total energy by up to 36.34% relative to prior methods, with measurements showing that computation can dominate the energy of slow motion [236]. Fleet availability adds charging constraints, as in cyclic scheduling of operating and charging periods under a station budget [237] and in persistent-monitoring routes that minimize team size under revisit-latency and recharging limits with deterministic discharge [238]. A ten-home assistive deployment combines docking rules, cloud orchestration, and remote supervision, with internet problems and localization failures among the causes of interruption [3]. A cloud–edge system offloads mapping and trajectory generation to a Kubernetes cluster over 5G and keeps MPC tracking and collision avoidance on Jetson-equipped Ackermann robots, with connection modes that fall back to a leader-based local network [239].

Maintenance and learning form a second operational loop. Predictive data acquisition selects new training observations for teach-repeat-learn navigation from visual matching ambiguity [240]. SELFI stabilizes deployment-time reinforcement learning with a model-based objective and counts interventions during learning [241], while LiReN combines foundation-model adaptation with pseudo-resets, keepout rules, charging, and help escalation [242]. Counterfactual replay selects among adapting policies at the cost of between-trial computation [243].

E. Synthesis

Fault tolerance is specific to the modeled channel. Tolerant control suits modeled actuator or sensor faults while some actuation remains. Monitors are useful when their failure event matches the response being selected, as when a localization-success estimate triggers relocalization or a planner-failure predictor triggers repositioning. Executed recovery further needs a local state that remains trustworthy during the maneuver. Long-term service additionally depends on charging, energy, network access, offboard computation, and human assistance, all of which make recovery quality a matter of both restored operation and the interruptions needed to achieve it. The studies reviewed here contain 9 of the 14 integrity or failure-risk assessments in the sample and the largest share of task outcomes under a named degradation condition (Table V), although their faults are often injected or simulated.

IX. Evaluation Practice

Table IV draws Sections IV–VIII together by listing, for each navigation function, the main responses to degradation, the conditions under which they help, and the evidence that the reviewed studies leave open. Since most entries in the last column concern how a result was evaluated rather than whether a mechanism exists, this section compares evaluation practice across the reviewed functions.

Evaluation of autonomy under degradation must relate component outputs to executed behavior. The comparison below follows three axes, namely the level at which performance is measured, the conditions under which degradation is tested, and the event and assumptions behind a risk or diagnostic claim. Fig. 3 connects the three axes through one time-aligned navigation episode with a degraded interval. Table V counts these attributes among the 228 technical publications for each reviewed function.

TABLE IV
RESPONSES TO DEGRADATION BY NAVIGATION FUNCTION, THE CONDITIONS UNDER WHICH THEY HELP, AND THE MAIN EVIDENCE GAPS IN THE REVIEWED STUDIES.

Function	Main responses	Conditions for benefit	Main evidence gaps
Localization and mapping (Sec. IV)	Selective updates, complementary sensing, motion and contact priors, relocalization, map revision	Surviving geometry in observable directions, independently informative measurements, credible supervision for learned priors, later overlap, valid persistence estimates	Mostly recorded or replayed data. Degeneracy, consistency, and similarity scores differ in meaning. Responses to a revised map rarely executed
Traversability, planning, and control (Sec. V)	Terrain costs and risk fields, information-aware exploration, learned prediction and policies, safety filters and risk constraints, delay-aware tracking	Accurate pose and adequate terrain coverage, available priors and loop opportunities, training coverage, known state and admissible inputs	Estimated risk rather than measured collisions. Few quantified simulation-to-hardware comparisons. Pose uncertainty rarely propagated into terrain decisions
Semantic navigation (Sec. VI)	Semantic scene memory, geographic grounding, learned actions, language-derived cost layers, candidate selection with embodiment filters	Valid map updates, coverage of prior maps or tours, a candidate generator that proposes feasible routes, a local controller that stays valid during pending inference	Incorrect or stale reasoning rarely injected. GPS, cloud, and map-preparation dependencies. Few physical trials per route
Multi-robot coordination (Sec. VII)	Allocation and spatial partition, compact sharing, distributed and asynchronous estimation, rendezvous, conditional map repair	Compatible shared inputs, reachable encounters, stable front-end odometry, tracked correlations	Ideal or modeled communication. Acceptance of stale or biased content after a partition untested on moving teams
Fault tolerance and recovery (Sec. VIII)	Analytic redundancy and tolerant control, integrity and runtime monitoring, executed recovery, resource and service management	A modeled fault channel with remaining actuation, a monitored event that matches the response, trustworthy state for the recovery maneuver	Injected or simulated faults. Restarted or censored trials. Interruptions and human assistance seldom reported

TABLE V
REPORTED EVALUATION ATTRIBUTES AMONG THE 228 TECHNICAL PUBLICATIONS, BY THE SECTION THAT REVIEWS EACH PUBLICATION. ATTRIBUTES OVERLAP, AND THE CONTEXT REVIEW IS EXCLUDED.

Attribute	IV	V	VI	VII	VIII	All
Publications	66	52	30	40	40	228
Measurement level						
Component measures	66	29	13	29	23	160 (70%)
Task outcomes	2	49	29	26	22	128 (56%)
Test conditions						
Degradation testing	45	21	9	24	31	130 (57%)
Degradation testing with task outcomes	2	19	8	13	17	59 (26%)
Risk and diagnostic assessment						
Integrity or failure-risk assessment	3	1	0	1	9	14 (6%)
Platform and resources						
Wheeled-robot platform or data	30	47	25	29	30	161 (71%)
Computation placement reported	45	29	17	30	28	149 (65%)

Counts are per publication, and the two attributes of a combined row need not come from the same experiment. Percentages refer to all 228 publications. Fig. S1 also counts the context review of Section V.

A. Measurement, Test Conditions, and Claim Interpretation

Component measures include trajectory, mapping, segmentation, prediction, and tracking error together with runtime and classification scores, whereas *task outcomes* concern completion, collision, coverage, traversal time, intervention, and service availability. Lower error can help explain a task result, although the connection must be measured rather than assumed. *Degradation testing* covers injected faults, outages, terrain variation, and deliberately selected difficult sequences, which describe an experimental condition rather than a metric. A publication counts when it names the condition and reports results for it, without a requirement for a matched nominal control. For *risk and diagnostic assessment*, the defined event matters, since classifier recall, nominal false-positive control, protection-level coverage, and undetected hazardous error are not interchangeable, as reliable MCL, conformal anomaly detection, and EKF-SLAM integrity illustrate [29], [218], [220].

B. Evidence Across Navigation Functions

The counts in Table V describe the selected sample rather than the field, and assessment depth varies as disclosed in the supplementary material. Three patterns are nevertheless large enough to qualify the comparisons of Sections IV–VIII. First, evidence for localization and mapping stops at the estimate, since all 66 studies report component measures and 45 report results under a named degradation condition, whereas only 2 report a task outcome. Planning and semantic studies show the opposite profile, with task outcomes in nearly all studies but named degradation conditions in fewer than half. Second, only 59 publications (26%) report task outcomes under a named degradation condition, the combination that ties a degraded condition to executed behavior. Fault-management studies have the largest share of this combination, which the interfaces of Section X require. Third, the sample contains only 14 publications with integrity or failure-risk assessment, 9 of them in Section VIII, and 79 publications that do not report computation placement. The following subsections examine how these attributes are measured and what their results can support.

C. Execution and Reference Dependence

Recorded measurements preserve sensor artifacts without testing feedback between the estimated state and future observations, whereas closed-loop evaluation lets the evaluated

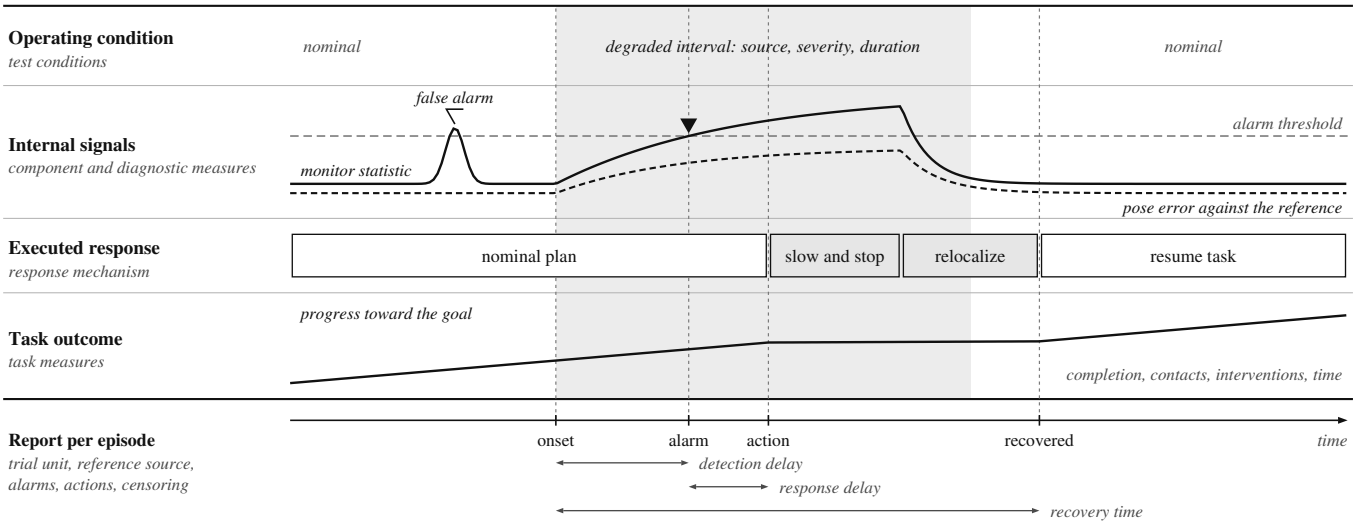


Fig. 3. Joint evaluation of detection and response in one navigation episode. The shaded band marks the degraded interval. The operating condition defines the test, internal signals carry component and diagnostic measures, and the executed response and task outcome carry task measures. Detection delay, response delay, and recovery time follow from the synchronized events. A threshold crossing while the pose error stays below the alert limit counts as a false alarm, and an error above the alert limit without a crossing counts as a missed detection.

output change the commands and thus the subsequent observations. External pose, offboard processing, teleoperated prior mapping, and staged scenes define the conditions of that feedback. Slip-aware fusion is evaluated during physical motion without a controller consuming its estimates [52], LiDAR-based barrier control runs under external pose and offboard computation [26], and a learned clearance model plans on a laptop connected over a local network [131]. The step to hardware can itself change the result, as the drop in success of terrain-adaptive MPC between simulation and outdoor trials shows [102].

References introduce their own dependence when they share sensors or processing with the evaluated method. Campus line localization uses a map and trajectory reference from the same LiDAR–inertial pipeline [219], kinematic diagnosis uses a substitute position that shares sensors with the monitored signals [211], and M2UD mixes smoothed RTK, offline multisensor SLAM, and selected laser-tracker checks [2]. The HK-MEMS bus-route reference lacks timestamps [31], GEODE varies reference construction by scene [30], and orchard map merging is scored against the same mapping backbone [187]. Cooperative range-only SLAM runs offline on joystick-recorded bags [194], whereas hierarchical map transmission reports an estimated risk field from dataset replay rather than measured contacts [186]. Controlled variables must also match the claimed mechanism. Varying terrain geometry tests plane-fitting allocation [179], whereas a test of pose-aware terrain decisions must vary pose uncertainty. Similarly, communication studies rank methods under ideal simulated links in URGE [178] and replay benchmark factors under modeled connectivity in riMESA [189]. Neither setting measures how physical link loss changes the ranking.

D. Guarantees, Rates, and Denominators

A formal safety result applies to a specified event, probability space, horizon, and set of assumptions. A scenario-planning certificate concerns the risk of an accepted plan under a predicted obstacle distribution [128], environment-level perception calibration depends on representative calibration environments and known state [129], and a barrier proof may assume feasible inputs that saturation violates [26]. Spatiotemporal-tube guarantees likewise assume bounded disturbances and terminal separation without explicit input limits [138]. None of these guarantees is an empirical closed-loop collision frequency, which must be estimated from executed trials.

Empirical rates require a denominator and an independent trial unit. Across ten homes, the assistive-robot study records 1539 service requests, of which 1130 succeeded, 177 failed, and 232 were not performed [3]. Its 86.46% success rate uses the 1307 attempted interventions as denominator and is therefore not the fraction of requests served. Eligibility and censoring change the represented population. Some studies remove scenarios before reporting, as when the CENTAURO study discards infeasible or slowly planned scenarios [22]. Others remove methods or runs after a failure. Cross-modal teach-and-repeat excludes methods that fail on the first route from later routes [85], an outdoor visual-inertial benchmark averages error only over surviving runs [244], and multi-session radar mapping omits failed baselines from its averages [70]. A trial repeated after failed relocalization [227] differs from recovery within the original attempt. Completion after temporal-logic relaxation [228] must likewise name the requirements that were changed. Small hardware samples, such as 30 object-search trials [145] or few repetitions per outdoor route [161], support feasibility more than precise rates. Safety and completion must also be reported together, since refusing every action reduces collisions while preventing useful work.

E. Timing, Placement, and Comparisons

Timing should cover sensing age, transport, perception, estimation, planning, supervision, command delivery, and actuator response, which processor identity and average module runtime do not establish. Sentinel's fast and slow monitors have different intervention horizons [221], FORTRESS caches slow reasoning before runtime planning [226], and a 1 Hz VLM planner [162] or a change detector at 2.74 Hz on an embedded GPU [69] requires a local controller that stays valid between outputs. DMSA processes data at 1.5–4 times the recording duration and distinguishes unsupported sensor adaptations from failed runs [245]. Memory-event-triggered MPC counts updates on an industrial computer rather than measuring onboard execution [139]. A study of LiDAR–inertial non-reproducibility repeats each experiment 30 times after controlling subscribers and buffering [246], showing that repeated playback characterizes implementation variability rather than variation across missions.

F. Joint Evaluation of Detection and Response

A joint evaluation links degradation onset to an internal trigger, an executed response, and a task outcome within one mission, as Fig. 3 shows. Its specification includes the fault model, onset, duration, severity, recovery criterion, and channels assumed to remain trustworthy. The alarm time is the first detector decision that the supervisor receives, and the action time is the onset of the commanded response. Synchronized logs should retain detector outputs, thresholds, false and missed alarms, detection-to-action delay, and which of observation rejection, map correction, filter reset, or physical maneuver was executed. Comparing the nominal stack, a simple response, and an integrated response under matched conditions isolates the contribution of the response mechanism, while no-fault controls reveal the cost of unnecessary interventions. Outcomes should combine completion, contact, interventions, path and time cost, and resource use with component error and diagnostic calibration, reported with the trial unit, censoring, reference coverage, and uncertainty intervals where estimable.

X. Open Challenges

The four interfaces below, numbered as in Figs. 1 and 2, connect these functions in ways whose behavior under degradation remains insufficiently characterized. Each subsection identifies the existing mechanisms and the unresolved dependency. Table VI then outlines, for each interface, a matched comparison that would test the dependency under the evaluation principles of Section IX. The interfaces are an agenda proposed by this survey rather than a ranking derived from the coding, and part of the corpus was acquired for them in a late selection stage, as the supplementary material discloses.

A. Localization-Triggered Navigation Recovery

Localization monitoring and executed recovery are both available, although the reviewed systems rarely connect them through the same trigger. Protection levels characterize pose-error coverage [219], modality switching restores estimator constraints [38], collaborative repair revises landmarks on road-vehicle data [88], and fault-tolerant tracking accommodates specified channels [217]. On the action side, GP-based recovery executes a stop–reposition–resume sequence after optimizer failure [224], visual tracking loss triggers a stop and a relocalization attempt on a physical vehicle [227], and CENTAURO selects failure-specific recovery through behavior-tree supervision [22]. RTEB repairs infeasible plan initialization, SCALE returns toward familiar observations, and CARE adjusts trajectories using estimated depth [21], [230], [231]. Active view planning tries to prevent visual tracking loss before it occurs [232]. Wheel–inertial odometry with a ground-manifold prior offers an interoceptive fallback whose drift grows without external correction [51]. These triggers concern different objects, namely optimizer infeasibility, visual novelty, predicted tracking loss, and hazardous pose error. The open question is how a localization warning should select slowing, stopping, relocalization, or repositioning when part of the state needed to execute that action is itself unreliable. For compact conventional wheels, the candidate actions must also remain feasible with the sensing and actuation left after the fault.

B. Resource-Constrained Semantic Reasoning and Fallback

Wheeled systems already combine semantic trajectory selection with geometric planning [160], [161], group reasoning with constrained local control [166], and embodiment-specific re-ranking that rejects paths the chassis cannot execute [162]. Perception calibration on a legged robot [129], runtime monitoring [221], cached reasoning with fallback on a quadrotor [226], and distillation into lightweight encoders [167] address reliability and response time. Language-derived costmap layers [164] and relocation-aware object search [145] move semantic errors into costs or search order, where geometry can check them. The remaining interface concerns the lifetime of a semantic decision, since an old destination can remain valid while an old pedestrian detour becomes unusable. In the team-level analogue, Co-NavGPT executes semantic frontier assignments geometrically with perception and planning on a workstation [151]. A delayed assignment can then remain syntactically valid after the shared map or the teammate allocation has changed. HAM-Nav and Mobility VLA depend on sketch or tour coverage, while VLM-GroNav retains GPS and cloud dependencies [155], [156], [170]. SocialNav-SUB indicates that incorrect reasoning, and not only unavailable or delayed responses, requires explicit testing [169].

C. Pose Uncertainty in Wheeled Terrain Decisions

Recent terrain decisions increasingly combine geometry with localization, map, or contact uncertainty. Terrain-aware Ackermann collaboration uses local geometry and spatial allocation [179], FIT-SLAM 2 couples traversability with expected localizability [104], and an aquatic explorer weights mapping information by positional uncertainty [91]. Semantic neural processes estimate uncertain elevation [89], evidential semantic maps attach uncertainty to terrain classes [90], visual-geometric maps use novelty and speed distributions in executed navigation [101], and SPARTA models angle-dependent

TABLE VI
OPEN INTERFACES BETWEEN NAVIGATION FUNCTIONS, THE DEPENDENCY THAT EACH LEAVES UNRESOLVED, AND A MATCHED COMPARISON THAT WOULD TEST IT.

Interface	Unresolved dependency	Matched comparison	Primary outcomes
1. Localization-triggered recovery (Sec. X-A)	Which response a localization warning should select when part of the state needed to execute it is unreliable	Fixed estimator and route. Immediate stop, threshold-triggered relocalization, and an action chosen from the remaining trustworthy channels, under controlled pose bias and weak geometry, including trials in which one alarm fires while another channel misleads	Restored localization and task progress, contact and interventions, cost of unnecessary stops under nominal sensing
2. Semantic reasoning with fallback (Sec. X-B)	How long a semantic decision stays valid, and whether wrong as well as late responses are rejected	Fixed model and controller. Periodic querying, scene-triggered querying, and cached decisions, under delayed responses, changed candidate paths, injected incorrect responses, and varied obstacle-track quality	Completion, contact, and fallback duration against energy and query cost, with assignment age for teams
3. Pose uncertainty in terrain decisions (Sec. X-C)	How pose uncertainty changes the probability that the wheel footprint rests on traversable support	Fixed terrain map and chassis. A calibrated pose distribution propagated into footprint clearance or speed, against geometry-only planning and fixed inflation, on narrow supports and slopes with an independent reference	Contact and interventions against completion and travel time, with aborted risky attempts counted as outcomes
4. Shared-state acceptance after reconnection (Sec. X-D)	Which returning information to accept when it may be stale, correlated, or biased	Moving ground team after a controlled partition. Immediate fusion, age-based rejection, and correlation- or residual-aware acceptance against a deterministic merge, with delay and landmark bias varied separately	Fault propagation and shared-state divergence, duplicated coverage, completion, and interventions

risk [100]. Terrain-adaptive stability bounds [102] and implicit traversability fields [103] shape executed speed and route on small skid-steer robots, whose hardware failures are attributed to wheel slip, wet-ground traction, and sensor occlusion rather than to pose error. Terrain-point scatter, expected landmark information, and pose covariance thus describe different quantities. The open question is how uncertainty in pose alters the probability that a wheel-supported footprint lies on the estimated traversable surface under incomplete observation.

D. Disconnection, Reconnection, and Corrupted Shared Information

Reconnection mechanisms exist for particular shared quantities, such as the target estimates that failure-aware aerial tracking fuses after a link returns [202]. Cooperative pose fusion [86] and correlation-aware landmark repair [88] address other estimation objects, the latter as a candidate estimator-level mechanism rather than a validated reconnection protocol. Reception-aware control [32], sparse position sharing [181], and rendezvous planning co-optimized with task allocation [199] change connectivity or message requirements. Asynchronous consensus back ends tolerate dropped exchanges and outlier measurements [189], [190], whereas regional maps converge through a deterministic merge rule that tolerates delay without testing corrupted content [178]. Sparse loop exchange, lossy keyframe selection with lossless coding, layered transmission with back-end feedback, and planned observation check-ins reduce traffic [185], [186], [192], [203], although lower traffic does not establish safe acceptance after reconnection. The open interface is selective acceptance when isolated robots return with stale, correlated, or biased information, since receiving a packet establishes neither frame compatibility nor the validity of its map or pose content. Concrete prerequisites to violate one at a time include stable metric odometry in foundation-model loop fusion [193], continuous range visibility in cooperative initialization [194], orchard-specific overlap priors [187], and stable front-end odometry in asynchronous collaborative LiDAR SLAM [190].

E. Broader Challenges

1) Multifactor benchmarks and transfer: Degradation sources interact, as when poor illumination coincides with moving obstacles and weak network coverage. Benchmarks therefore need controlled severity and onset, factorial or stratified designs, repeated independent missions, and annotated reference quality, with module scores linked to completion, contacts, and interventions. Transfer raises the same need. Terrain-policy failures [119], the supervision requirements of learned wheel models [55], and a terrain field trained on one skid-steer platform and deployed on a lighter one [103] motivate comparisons between explicit model adaptation and training-data variation. Simulation-based failure prediction can repair policies before deployment, although only for the failures that the simulator models [223]. Such comparisons should report failure onset, recovery, additional data requirements, and performance on withheld terrain, sensor, and layout conditions.

2) Computation, energy, and information age: Resource-aware design [235], cached semantic reasoning [226], cloud–edge offloading [239], and joint speed and processor control [236] connect computation choices to navigation. Response-time distributions under concurrent sensing, mapping, and reasoning loads are needed to quantify deadline misses and stale-result rejection.

3) Long-term maintenance and learning: Persistent mapping [66], change detection on prior maps [69], cross-modal teach-and-repeat over months [85], dynamic scene estimation [63], and home deployment [3] require representations to be revised while localization and service continue. Continual learning also depends on the infrastructure that makes new data useful, as SELFI, LiReN, and OLiVia-Nav combine adaptation with localization, resets, supervisory support, or online encoder updates [167], [241], [242]. Longitudinal evaluations should relate map updates and adaptation to revisits, storage growth, availability, maintenance effort, and human escalation, retaining failed learning attempts and distinguishing the time between recording sessions from the duration of uninterrupted

autonomy.

4) Assurance under changing information quality: Integrity analysis [29], statistical perception assurance [129], risk-aware planning [128], and learned clearance distributions [131] rest on different assumptions about faults, distributions, references, and feasible actions, any of which may cease to hold during operation. Online monitors of these assumptions should be evaluated under distribution shift, actuator saturation, infeasible constraints, and sensing delays, with false-alarm and missed-violation rates reported together with the consequences of the subsequent response.

5) Generalization across embodiments: Differential drive, skid steering, and Ackermann steering impose different curvature, traction, and tracking constraints. Swapping an embodiment-specific affordance model has let one semantic planner serve legged and wheeled robots [162], while failure-aware team policies keep a search effective when members drop out [234]. Cross-platform evaluations should report clearance, curvature feasibility, traction, payload disturbance, and timing margins alongside success. Results obtained with high-resolution sensing or external pose must also be reassessed under the sensing and computation of the target robot.

XI. Conclusion

This survey compared methods for wheeled autonomy through the navigation assumptions affected by degradation, the information or actions changed by each response, and the evidence for their effectiveness. Estimators retain useful constraints through selective updates, gain independent motion information from radar, range, and wheel sensing, and extend motion prediction through model adaptation, while navigation systems revise maps to correct accumulated inconsistency. These responses depend on different operating conditions, namely surviving geometry, credible supervision, valid correspondences, and consistent correlations.

The reviewed results also reveal conditional trade-offs, since more observable exploration routes can cost additional travel and computation, risk-constrained planning trades conservatism against progress, and recovery helps when its predicted failure matches the obstacle to task execution. Semantic ranking remains limited by the available candidates and by the capabilities of the executing chassis, whereas compact or asynchronous communication preserves only the information encoded in the shared representation. These dependencies explain why improved component scores alone do not establish more reliable navigation.

The central requirement for further evaluation is to connect degradation onset, an internal trigger, and an executed response within the same mission, as the four interfaces of Section X illustrate. The coded sample shows how rarely this connection is made, since only 26% of the technical publications in the purposive sample report task outcomes under a named degradation condition and localization and mapping studies almost never report task outcomes. Comparisons that retain the trial unit, reference dependence, timing, and failure conditions can establish when an integrated response improves both task performance and safety. The heterogeneous, purposively selected evidence supports these mechanism-level conclusions, whereas broader performance rankings require matched protocols and more uniform coverage.

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